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xesn: Echo state networks powered by xarray and dask

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Software

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Summary

Xesn is a python package that allows scientists to easily design Echo State Networks (ESNs) for forecasting problems. ESNs are a Recurrent Neural Network architecture introduced by Jaeger (2001) that are part of a class of techniques termed Reservoir Computing. One defining characteristic of these techniques is that all internal weights are determined by a handful of global, scalar parameters, thereby avoiding problems during backpropagation and reducing training time significantly. Because this architecture is conceptually simple, many scientists implement ESNs from scratch, leading to questions about computational performance. Xesn offers a straightforward, standard implementation of ESNs that operates efficiently on CPU and GPU hardware. The package leverages optimization tools to automate the parameter selection process, so that scientists can reduce the time finding a good architecture and focus on using ESNs for their domain application. Importantly, the package flexibly handles forecasting tasks for out-of-core, multi-dimensional datasets, eliminating the need to write parallel programming code. Xesn was initially developed to handle the problem of forecasting weather dynamics, and so it integrates naturally with Python packages that have become familiar to weather and climate scientists such as `xarray` (Hoyer & Hamman, 2017). However, the software is ultimately general enough to be utilized in other domains where ESNs have been useful, such as in signal processing (Jaeger & Haas, 2004).

Statement of Need

ESNs are a conceptually simple Recurrent Neural Network architecture, leading many scientists who use ESNs implement them from scratch. While this approach can work well for low dimensional problems, the situation quickly becomes more complicated when:

1. deploying the code on GPUs,
2. interacting with a parameter optimization algorithm in order to tune the model, and
3. parallelizing the architecture for higher dimensional applications.

Xesn is designed to address all of these points. Additionally, while there are some design flexibilities for the ESN architectures, the overall interface is streamlined, based on the parameter and design impact study shown by Platt et al. (2022).

GPU Deployment

At its core, xesn uses NumPy (Harris et al., 2020) and SciPy (Virtanen et al., 2020) to perform array based operations on CPUs. The package then harnesses the CPU/GPU agnostic code capabilities afforded by CuPy (Okuta et al., 2017) to operate on GPUs.

Parameter Optimization

Although ESNs do not employ backpropagation to train internal weights, their behavior and performance is highly sensitive to a set of 5 scalar parameters. Moreover, the interaction of these parameters is often not straightforward, and it is therefore advantageous to optimize these parameter values (Platt et al., 2022). Additionally, Platt et al. (2023) and Smith et al. (2023) showed that adding invariant metrics to the loss function, like the leading Lyapunov exponent or the Kinetic Energy spectrum, improved generalizability. As a generic implementation of these metrics, `xesn` offers the capability to constrain the system's Power Spectral Density during parameter optimization, in addition to a more traditional mean squared error loss function.

`Xesn` enables parameter optimization by integrating with the Surrogate Modeling Toolbox (Bouhlel et al., 2020), which has a Bayesian Optimization implementation. `Xesn` provides a simple interface so that the user can specify all of the settings for training, parameter optimization, and testing with a single YAML file. By doing so, all parts of the experiment are more easily reproducible and easier to manage with scheduling systems like SLURM on HPC environments or in the cloud.

Scaling to Higher Dimensions

It is typical for ESNs to use a hidden layer that is $\mathcal{O}(10 - 100)$ times larger than the input and target space, so forecasting large target spaces quickly becomes intractable with a single reservoir. To address this, Pathak et al. (2018) developed a parallelization strategy so that multiple, semi-independent reservoirs make predictions of a single, high dimensional system. This parallelization was generalized for multiple dimensions by Arcomano et al. (2020) and Smith et al. (2023), the latter of which serves as the basis for `xesn`.

`Xesn` enables prediction for multi-dimensional systems by integrating its high level operations with `xarray` (Hoyer & Hamman, 2017). As with `xarray`, users refer to dimensions based on their named axes. `Xesn` parallelizes the core array based operations by using `dask` (Dask Development Team, 2016) to map them across available resources, which can include a multi-threaded environment on a laptop or single node, or a distributed computing resource such as traditional on-premises HPC or in the cloud.

Existing Reservoir Computing Software

It is important to note that there is already an existing software package in Python for Reservoir Computing, called `ReservoirPy` (Trouvain et al., 2020). To our knowledge, the purpose of this package is distinctly different. The focus of `ReservoirPy` is to develop a highly generic framework for Reservoir Computing, for example, allowing one to change the network node type and graph structure underlying the reservoir, and allowing for delayed connections. On the other hand, `xesn` is focused specifically on implementing ESN architectures that can scale to multi-dimensional forecasting tasks. Additionally, while `ReservoirPy` enables hyperparameter grid search capabilities via Hyperopt (Bergstra et al., 2013), `xesn` enables Bayesian Optimization as noted above.

Finally, we note the code base used by (Arcomano et al., 2020, 2022, 2023), available at (Arcomano, 2023). The code implements ESNs in Fortran, and focuses on using ESNs for hybrid physics-ML modeling.

Computational Performance

Here we show brief scaling results in order to show how the standard (eager) `xesn.ESN` scales with increasing hidden and input dimensions. Additionally, we provide some baseline results to serve as guidance when configuring `dask` to use the parallelized `xesn.LazyESN` architecture.

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For methodological details on these two architectures, please refer to this section of the documentation.

Standard (Eager) ESN Performance

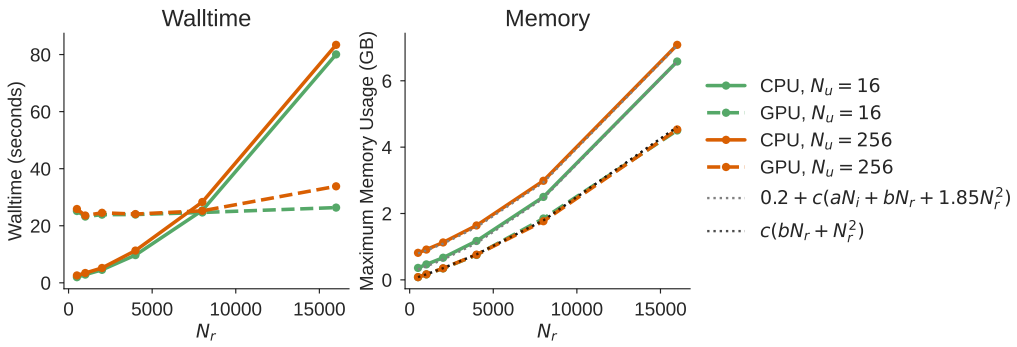

Figure 1: Walltime and memory usage for the standard ESN architecture for two different system sizes (N_u) and a variety of reservoir sizes (N_r). Walltime is captured with Python's `time` module, and memory is captured with memory-profiler for the CPU runs and with NVIDIA Nsight Systems for the GPU runs. The dotted lines indicate theoretical scaling of memory, where $a = 250,000$ and $b = 20,000$ are empirically derived constants, and $c = 8 \cdot 10^9$ is a conversion to GB.

For reference, in Figure 1 we show the walltime and memory usage involved for training the standard (eager) `ESN` architecture as a function of the input dimension N_u and reservoir size N_r. We ran the scaling tests in the `us-central-1c` zone on Google Cloud Platform, using a single `c2-standard-60` instance to test the CPU (NumPy) implementation and a single `a2-highgpu-8g` (i.e., with 8 A100 cards) instance to test the GPU (CuPy) implementation. The training data was generated from the Lorenz96 model (Lorenz, 1996) with dimensions $N_u = \{16, 256\}$, and we generated 80,000 total samples in the training dataset.

In the CPU tests, walltime scales quadratically with the reservoir size, while it is mostly constant on a GPU. For this problem, it becomes advantageous to use GPUs once the reservoir size is approximately $N_r = 8,000$ or greater. In both the CPU and GPU tests, memory scales quadratically with reservoir size, although the increasing memory usage with reservoir size is more dramatic on the CPU than GPU. This result serves as a motivation for our parallelized architecture.

Parallel (Lazy) Architecture Strong Scaling Results

In order to evaluate the performance of the parallelized architecture, we take the Lorenz96 system with dimension $N_u = 256$ and subdivide the domain into $N_g = \{2, 4, 8, 16, 32\}$ groups. We then fix the reservoir size so that $N_r * N_g = 16,000$, so that the problem size is more or less fixed and the timing results reflect strong scaling. The training task and resources used are otherwise the same as for the standard ESN results shown in Figure 1. We then create 3 different `dask.distributed` Clusters, testing:

1. Purely threaded mode (CPU only).
2. The relevant default "LocalCluster" (i.e., single node) configuration for our resources.
3. A `LocalCluster` with 1 `dask` worker per group. On GPUs, this assumes 1 GPU per worker and we are able to use a maximum of 8 workers due to our available resources.

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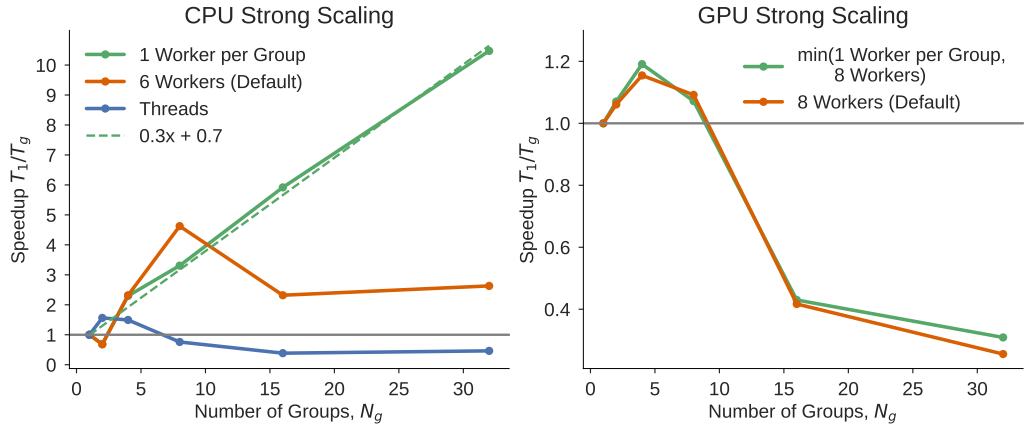

Figure 2: Strong scaling results, showing speedup as a ratio of serial training time to parallel training time as a function of number of groups or subdomains of the Lorenz96 system. Serial training time is evaluated with $N_u = 256$ and $N_r = 16,000$ with `xesn.ESN` from Figure 1, and parallel training time uses `xesn.LazyESN` with the number of groups as shown. See text for a description of the different schedulers used.

Figure 2 shows the strong scaling results of `xesn.LazyESN` for each of these cluster configurations, where each point shows the ratio of the walltime with the standard (serial) architecture to the lazy (parallel) architecture with N_g groups. On CPUs, using 1 `dask` worker process per ESN group generally scales well, which makes sense because each group is trained entirely independently.

On GPUs, the timing is largely determined by how many workers (GPUs) there are relative to the number of groups. When the number of workers is less than the number of groups, performance is detrimental. However, when there is at least one worker per group, the timing is almost the same as for the single worker case, only improving performance by 10-20%. While the strong scaling is somewhat muted, the invariance of walltime to reservoir size in Figure 1 and number of groups in Figure 2 means that the distributed GPU implementation is able to tackle larger problems at roughly the same computational cost.

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